Date: 2026-05-03

notes on papers

snc

- t12345678
- t12

(52) annotations: Belyaev 2023b(1).pdf

paper: Belyaev (2023)

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note

comment

2

Briefly, c-structure is a phrase structure tree; constraints on possible trees are usually described via context-free rules as in

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) it has become a universal practice to capture long-distance dependencies through functional uncertainty at fstructure, and the use of empty categories at c-structure has become unnecessary

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from the point of view of context-free rules, VP and V are atomic symbols that are not related to each other; labeling one of the daughters of NP as N is merely a convention

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wrong with this structure: an I head cannot be the daughter of NP; the VP cannot be headed by, or even immediately dominate, a Det; an AdvP cannot be headed by a noun.1The principle that prohibits this is called endocentricity; roughly stated, it means that the external distribution of a phrase (e.g. NP) is determined by the category of one and only one of its daughters, the head.

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enforces endocentricity by introducing the notion of projection and “bar level” and requiring that each non-maximal projection (X0and X′; X″, or XP, is usually assumed to be the maximum level of projection) be dominated by a node belonging to the same category, with the bar level either incremented by one or unchanged. The sisters of c-structure heads (complements, specifiers and adjuncts) have to be maximal projections or non-projecting words (on which see below).

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Second, X′theory in LFG allows for the following positions: complement (3a), specifier (3b), X′adjunct (3c) and XP adjunct (3d).

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Specifically, heads may only be stipulated if there is actual lexical material that can occupy them; therefore, even the existence of projections such as CP or IP cannot be automatically assumed for all languages. More abstract projections such as TopicP or ForceP are not usually introduced because there are few suitable candidates for the status of heads of these phrases, and little distributional evidence to argue that their specifiers are distinct structural positions

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most prominent exception is the exocentric category S.3This category does not have a “head” in the normal sense: it can be “headed” by a verb, but also by an adjective or another nonverbal predicate; this is why the term S is used instead of, for example, VP. The category S is most extensively used in nonconfigurational languages

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as a result, X′theory, understood purely in terms of c-structure, is little else than a system of labeling nodes which allows us to generalize endocentricity at constituent structure level.

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lexicalism implies that the features of individual syntactic elements (morphemes and word-forms) as well as their subcategorization frames are determined in the lexicon, and cannot be modified in the syntax (such as by promoting the direct object in a passive construction)

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syntax can only mutiply define lexical features, but cannot override them.

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individual words that are constructed from different blocks and according to different rules than syntactic constituents.5Thus, the distinction between morphology and syntax in LFG is viewed as fundamental

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This understanding of lexicalism is more formally termed lexical integrity

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since all morphology is sublexical, the position of individual affixes cannot have any syntactic relevance

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, c-structure in LFG is complemented by an additional level of representation called f-structure. F-structure is an attribute-value structure that includes information on valency, grammatical functions, and the features of clauses and their syntactic arguments.

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F-structure is usually thought of as a set of attribute-value pairs, or a function that maps attribute names to their values

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there is no such thing as two different f-structures having the same set of attributes and values;

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NA

#bookmarks Page 9

10

all bundles of agreement features (agr) with the same set of values are identical to each other. One agr bundle may be required to be identical to another via agreement sharing (Haug & Nikitina 2015) in the f-description (using an equation such as (☐ agr)=(☐ subj agr)), but it will also be identical to all other such bundles elsewhere in the same sentence, if they occur.

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uniqueness of pred values (Section 3.3.4), which ensures that any two independently introduced, semantically interpreted f-structures are formally distinct, even if they have the same lexical predicate and the same set of morphosyntactic features

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default relation between equations forming an f-description is conjunction, but disjunction is also possible; for example, { (☐ subj pers)=1 (..) (☐ subj pers)=2 } means that the subject is defined as being either 1st or 2nd person

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they are “constructive”, or defining: informally, a defining equation introduces a feature value, regardless of whether it is the only such equation or the same value is defined elsewhere

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a value cannot be assigned by a constraining equation

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constraining equations serve as a good illustration of the LFG principle of separation between description and the object being described

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The only thing a constraining equation does is to put constraints on permissible structures; it does not contribute to the structures themselves.

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The other two types of constraining equations are existential and negative constraints. Existential equations check that a feature has any value rather than testing for a specific value. They are written as simple function applications: (? ?) means that the f-structure ? must have the feature ? with any value; the absence of an equality statement indicates that we are dealing with an existential constraint. Negative constraints check that a feature does not have a given value ((? ?) ≠ ?; this is compatible with the feature having

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resolution of a valid f-structure for a sentence must proceed through two steps: (a) evaluation of defining equations; (b) evaluation of constraining equations

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island constraints

17

In the interaction between cand f-structure, c-structure is exclusively concerned with linear order and hierarchical embedding, while f-structures do not reflect linear order or constituent structure in any way. Therefore, linear order is relevant for most morphosyntactic constraints only in a limited way, insofar as it distinguishes between different c- to f-structure mappings

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agreement features are the domain of f-structure, and functional equations can only refer to f-structure functions, not linear or constituent-based positions.

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In LFG, such constraints can be captured using the relation of f-precedence (Kaplan & Zaenen 1989a), which is a way of introducing linear order constraints in f-structure using the inverse projection ?−1, which maps f-structures to the corresponding c-structure nodes

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there is nothing in the formal architecture or in any part of an LFG grammar that would prohibit a “clausal”f-structure to have the feature case or a “nominal” f-structure to have the feature

tense; such constraints are only implicit in the way these f-structures are constructed and mapped from c-structure nodes

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semantic form is a special type of attribute value that is exclusively assigned to the attribute pred. Semantic forms consist of the predicate name followed by the list of its syntactic arguments

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16fn is an abbreviation for functor; sfid stands for “semantic form identifier

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There are three conditions that any f-structure must satisfy in order to be treated as valid: Uniqueness (also known as Consistency), Completeness, and Coherence.(..)(..)Any f-structure that violates these conditions cannot be part of a valid analysis of any sentence, regardless of the rules of a particular grammar.

28

36) Ill-formed f-structure for *John, Mary saw John
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37) Ill-formed f-structure for *Mary saw:
#q: veni, vidi, vici ? how w/o context pred ‘videre<subj.empty>’ ? </subj.empty>

31

Glue Semantics is resource-sensitive, which automatically ensures both Completeness and Coherence: Completeness, because all premises of the meaning constructor introducing the main predicate have to be saturated; Coherence, because no unused resources have to be left

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Such MWEs often span whole syntactic phrases, and the lexical constraints involved cannot be captured locally. One solution that has been proposed in LFG is to replaced the contextfree c-structure by a variant of Tree-Adjoining Grammar

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the larger the tree, the longer its f-description; due to monotonicity, the f-structure of a larger tree fragment is, then, always more specific than the f-structure of any of its subtrees

37

(49) nicht-konfigurational !, :dorme: allein er-sie-es schläft. PRO drop languages, subjekt ist (pred=PRO) und wird nicht ausgesprochen

41

came

does not include 3.ps.sg > nicht-konpositional mit John (3rd.p.psg)

44

trend in much LFG work (King 1997, Butt & King 1997, Dalrymple & Nikolaeva 2011) is to eliminate information structure functions from syntax, instead relegating them to a separate projection, i-structure

44

specifiers map to discourse functions (DF), which consist of topic, focus and subj

46

The category S

47

Economy of expression: All syntactic phrase structure nodes are optional and are not used unless required by independent principles (completeness, coherence, semantic expressivity

48

Complements and specifiers not only can but must, as a rule, be optional because the c-structure does not contain any valency information and there is no way to verify at c-structure if, for example, the verb has a direct object.

49

the V head is only occupied if the verb form is periphrastic, and the auxiliary, or the finite verb in synthetic forms, stands in the I node in subordinate clauses (63) and in the C node in main clauses

49

For example, in English lexical verbs always appear in V, but the I head can be filled or not depending on whether the verb form is periphrastic or synthetic

The term periphrastic refers to the fact that the present perfect construction in most European languages is not synthetic, but is made up of an auxiliary + a participial main verb, with the most frequent perfect auxiliaries in Europe being HAVE and BE

49

periphrastic or synthetic

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(63) warum ist VP hier parallel zu I und nicht parent node? wenn wir (invers) schreiben “dasz karl kaufte das buch” hätten wir doch [[dasz] [[karl] [kaufte [das buch]]]]]? oder ist die inflektion hier entscheidend und es sind in der IP 1+2 nodes statt 1:3? möglicherweise weil karl+das buch optional ist, der kopf der IP aber nicht dh. kaufte ist dringender als der rest um die IP zufriedenzustellen und deshalb ein I head und kein V head

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kaufte

synthetic, terminal of IP

(8) annotations: Boerjars 2020 LFG Annual Review 6_1.pdf

paper: Börjars (2020)

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comment

2

crucial idea underpinning Lexical-Functional Grammar (LFG) is that a linguistic element of any size—a word, a phrase, or a sentence—is associated with different types of linguistic information, for instance, information about prosody, about category and constituency, about grammatical relations, and about semantics

2

“the formal model of LFG is not a syntactic theory in the linguistic sense. Rather, it is an architecture for syntactic theory

2

It is a parallel correspondence model because the different dimensions of linguistic information are represented separately but are connected by well-defined principles of correspondence, or mappings.

2

c-structure (constituent and category)

3

C-structure captures information about constituency and categories

6

Oblique argument

prepositional argument, obligatoire gehen1: nach, in > oblig. gehen2: walken,laufen, gehen (mit stöckern): nicht oblig. #q: was ist mit -ich gehe am rhein entlang- hier ist gehen & am... (als IP?) nicht so eng verbunden wie gehe + PP. also gehen ist autark+ / in welchem attribut würde das festgehalten werden? bzw: -entlang- ist ein PP head, oder... aber dann bleibt trotzdem: -am- stock gehen... #q

6

Adjunct

not necessary specification, vom prädikat nicht verlangt

9

. In all c- to f-structure mapping, the up arrow refers to the f-structure associated with the c-structure node above it, and the down arrow refers to the f-structure associated with the node itself

(8) annotations: börjars (1998), agreement and prodrop.pdf

paper: Börjars and Chapman (1998)

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5

we refer to the pronouns that do cooccur with the tense marker in (7) as Proj and the pronouns that occur with noninflected verb forms in (8) as Pro2,

PRO_1: gewöhnliches pronomen, coocurence with -s

5

we refer to the pronouns that do cooccur with the tense marker in (7) as Pro1 and the pronouns that occur with noninflected verb forms in (8) as Pro2,

PRO_1: gewöhnliches pronomen, coocurence with -s

6

9

ich und du gehest zusammen: noch nie gehört...

6

*Ich und du geh-e-st immer zusammen

6

Pro2 turns out to share certain properties with -s.

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two characteristic properties of the tense marker. First, it cannot be separated from the verb by any other element.

6

the verb inflection cannot be coordinated with another element of the same type

8

The annotated phrase-structure rules in (14) capture the fact that f-structure is defined configurationally in English

(1) annotations: bresnan (2023), lexical syntax.pdf

paper: Bresnan (2023)

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5

The lexical exponent take'em in LFG has a lexical entry consisting of attributevalue equations in the LFG formalism which binds together the grammatical relations and features of its atomic components

(23) annotations: Bresnan et al._2015_Abschnitt_3_S_21_36.pdf

paper: Bresnan et al. (2015)

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1

In the configurational model of universal grammar,

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In the relational model of universal grammar, in contrast, the remapping of semantic roles to their expression in the sentence takes place in the lexicon, altering the lexical entry of the verb.

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syntactic analysis of the passive

3

Call this the lexical analysis of the passive

3

Under the syntactic analysis, the identity of the subject's thematic role is altered by the syntactic derivation, whereas under the lexical analysis, the link between thematic role and subject is already specified in the lexicon prior to insertion into the syntactic structure

3

passive morphology removes the verb's ability to assign "abstract case" to its object, where case is necessary to license each DP/NP. This forces the object to move to a position where it receives case, namely the vacant subject position.

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suggests that the passive form's argument structure is present within the lexicon before insertion into the syntax

4

reconstruct lexical morphology in the syntax, contrary to our initial assumption

4

word formation processes such as derivation, compounding, and conversion are morpholexical and not syntactic, and that the inputs to these processes are also morpholexical and not syntactic

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however supporting her daughter

#q: this is not possible?

5

however AP vs *however VP: however supportive of her daughter she may have been vs* however supporting her daughter she may have been

5

passive verb forms, being verbal participles, also undergo conversion to adjectives

6

the fields had a marched through look

6

there is a two-step process whereby the active verbs change to adjectives and then the adjectives passivize

6

an unconsidered action

6

if there were a separate morphological rule of “adjectival passivization”alongside verbal passivization, these morphological parallels would be an unexplained accident

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the subject of predication of an adjective must be a theme

7

when the NP complement is required by the passivized verb, the corresponding adjectival passive will be ill-formed

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unaccusative” verbs have only an internal theta role to assign, while “unergative” verbs have only an external theta role to assign. The latter can be distinguished by their ability to occur in the way-construction (e.g. Fred danced his way into the kitchen, with unergative dance, but *Fred arrived his way into the kitchen, with unaccusative arrive

9

a recently left woman

is that not: a woman that has recently been left? eine verlassene frau? same with exercised athlete: ein geübter athlet

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an over-exercised athlete

#query: exercised athlete corpus evidence https://ske.li/bresnan_01 … can I -exercise an athlete-? like teach him stuff? https://ske.li/bresnan_02 … so -to exercise X- is rather: AUSüben, perform X claude https://claude.ai/share/f436e4fd-3fa3-4ab8-8d9d-c6b58b02cc22 …

10

Because the activity of running lacks an inherent result state, it is strange to say a run child. But when the goal is supplied to the activity, a result state is defined, and now conversion is possible (a run-away child)

10

*a thanked person will be illformed, because there is no salient result state defined by the process of thanking

(19) annotations: Wechsler & Hahm 2011 Polite Plurals_Morphology 21 .pdf

paper: Wechsler and Hahm (2011)

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2

According to this combined hierarchy, attributive modifiers are more likely to show syntactic agreement than verbs are, and verbs more so than participles, participles more than predicate adjectives, and predicate adjectives more than predicate nouns

3

by the Agreement Marking Principle, the adjective feature receives its semantic interpretation

3

Adjectives are more likely than verbs to show syntactic agreement, as long as the controller is marked for the syntactic agreement feature to which the adjective is sensitive

3

Pronoun triggers differ from common noun triggers: predicate adjectives tend to show semantic agreement with pronouns but syntactic agreement with common nouns

3

Agreement Marking Principle

4

was documented for Czech, French, Italian, Romanian, and Modern Greek

nicht auch deutsch einfach?

4

adjective number indicates semantic cardinality of the subject denotation, which will be called semantic agreement for convenience

5

French pluralia tantum noun like ciseaux ‘scissors’: when used for a single pair of scissors it is notionally singular but grammatically plural.

7

In all of these mixed agreement languages, pluralia tantum common nouns trigger plural on adjectives as well as verbs. Polite plural pronouns, meanwhile, trigger plural on a verb but semantic agreement on an adjective.

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Indeed, the classification of such nouns is not entirely arbitrary, in the sense that the denotation is typically related in some way to the semantic notion of plurality.

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The lexical classification of such nouns as inherently plural may have a semantic motivation, but it seems clear that the formal grammar of agreement must be directly sensitive to the plural feature and not necessarily sensitive to the semantic motivation for that feature.

9

That is the basis for placing nouns at the far right edge of the Predicate Hierarchy in (2).

9

legitimacy of the central question addressed in the following section: why pluralia tantum common nouns and polite plural pronouns differ in the agreement features that they trigger on adjectives in mixed agreement languages

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Syntactic agreement, first of all, arises when the trigger is grammatically marked for a feature to which the target is sensitive.

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Semantic agreement is our name for situations in which the agreement feature of the target receives its semantic interpretation, and that interpretation is applied to the denotation of the trigger

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(i) the head noun of the trigger must be marked for the feature to which the target is sensitive; and (ii) that feature must project from that head noun to the NP node.
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Instead, hypocrisy is attributed precisely to the conjunction of the two.
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(21) Agreement Marking Principle.(..)(..)An agreement target checks the trigger for a syntactic phi feature, assigning that feature's semantic interpretation to the trigger denotation if no syntactic feature is found.
13
Apparently it is the meaning that determines verb agreement

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